between India and Tibet, which, according to the Indian side, by implication meant that China had no quarrel over the alignment of the India–Tibet boundary line along its entire length. Dr Gopalachari, who was also a member of the Indian delegation, reportedly wrote a dissenting note cautioning the Government of India against this assumption that China had accepted the frontier as defined by India, [41] but his advice was ignored as it did not fit into the Government's framework. In the euphoria that the Agreement generated, which Nehru described as 'a new starting point for our relations with China and Tibet', he also directed that 'all our old maps dealing with this frontier should be carefully examined and where necessary withdrawn. New maps should be printed showing our northern and north-eastern frontier without any reference to any line (McMahon) . . . Both as flowing from our policy and as a consequence of our agreement with China, this frontier should be considered a firm and definite one which is not open to discussion with anybody.' [42] The Government of India now locked itself into a straitjacket on the boundary question.

In the 1954 diplomatic negotiations, the Chinese had clear objectives—the exercise of de jure sovereignty over Tibet and the ending of all historical extra-territorial (India) influence. The core objectives were achieved systematically one step at a time. It first 'liberated' Tibet in 1950 by marching in the PLA; then it consolidated its position on the ground by reaching a political agreement with Tibetans (17-Point Agreement) and militarily occupying all the territory. In the first two phases, China's strategy was to keep India on its side in order that it did not join the American anti-Communist efforts or provide assistance to the Tibetan government or resistance movements. Deception and engagement were some of the tactics used by them. They bought time to consolidate their control and to prepare for negotiations. At each stage, the Chinese probed the